

## Lecture 18: Introduction to Complexity Theory

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## 1. A Motivating Problem List

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Consider the following problems:

1. Sort an array.
2. Find the Minimum Spanning Tree (MST) of a given graph.
3. Is there a perfect matching in a given graph ?
4. Is  $p$  a prime number?
5. Does  $n$  have a factor  $\leq k$ ?
6. Find the minimum vertex cover of a given graph.
7. Find a solution to a given Integer Linear Program (ILP).
8. Does the graph  $G$  have a Hamiltonian path?
9. Count the number of perfect matchings in  $G$ .
10. Does program  $P$  halt on input  $w$  ? (Halting Problem)
11. From a given chess position, does Black have a winning strategy?
12. Do two programs produce the same output on all inputs?
13. Can  $n$  points be clustered onto  $k$  clusters?

14. Does a given set of constraints have a solution?

**How can we characterise these problems?**

## 2. Classifying Problems

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Computational problems can be broadly classified into three categories:

- **Decision Problems (YES/NO):** The answer is either YES or NO.
- **Optimization Problems:** Seek the best solution under some criterion (minimize / maximize), subject to satisfying constraints.
- **Counting Problems:** Count the number of valid solutions.

### Observation:

Many of the problems in the list above can be converted into a corresponding decision problem. For example:

- *Find the MST* (optimization)  $\longrightarrow$  *Does a spanning tree of weight  $\leq W$  exist?* (decision). The optimization version can then be solved using  $\mathcal{O}(\log n)$  calls to the decision oracle (e.g., binary search on the answer).
- *Factorise  $n$*  (optimization/search)  $\longrightarrow$  *Does  $n$  have a factor  $\leq k$ ?* (decision).

Note, however, that not every optimization problem can be reduced to a decision problem of this form in general.

**Decision problems are the central problems** in complexity theory, as they provide a clean, uniform framework for classification.

### 3. Formal Definitions: Decision Problems and Time Complexity

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#### 3.1 Decision Problems

**Definition 1** (Decision Problem). A *decision problem* asks whether a given input  $x$  belongs to a language  $L \subseteq \{0, 1\}^*$ .

Formally, a decision problem is a function

$$f : \{0, 1\}^* \rightarrow \{0, 1\}$$

satisfying

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x \in L, \\ 0 & \text{if } x \notin L, \end{cases} \quad \text{for all } x \in \{0, 1\}^*.$$

The input  $x$  is encoded as a binary string, and its size is  $n = |x|$ .

#### 3.2 Time Complexity of an Algorithm

**Definition 2** (Worst-case Time Complexity). For an algorithm  $A$ , the *worst-case time complexity*  $t(n)$  is the maximum number of steps  $A$  takes over all inputs of size  $n$ :

$$t(n) = \max_{x \in \{0, 1\}^n} \{ \# \text{ steps of } A(x) \}.$$

Here  $n = |x|$  is the length of the binary representation of the input.

### 3.3 Polynomial and Exponential Time

- **Polynomial Time.** If  $t(n) = \mathcal{O}(n^c)$  for some constant  $c$ , algorithm  $A$  runs in *polynomial time*. This is considered efficient.
- **Exponential Time.** If  $t(n) = \mathcal{O}(c^n)$  for some constant  $c > 1$ , algorithm  $A$  runs in *exponential time*. This is generally infeasible for large inputs.

#### Note:

- **Linear Programming (LP)  $\in \mathbf{P}$**  — the Simplex method is not polynomial in the worst case, but the Ellipsoid and Interior Point methods achieve polynomial time.
- **PRIMES  $\in \mathbf{P}$**  — long believed to require super-polynomial time, resolved by the AKS algorithm.

## 4. Complexity Classes: P and NP

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### 4.1 The Class P

**Definition 3.**  $\mathbf{P}$  is the class of all decision problems for which there exists a deterministic polynomial-time algorithm:

$$\mathbf{P} = \{ L \mid \exists \text{ a poly-time algorithm } A \text{ that decides } L \}.$$

### 4.2 The Class NP

NP captures problems with *non-deterministic* polynomial-time solutions — informally, problems where one can **guess** a certificate and verify it efficiently.

**Definition 4 (NP).** *NP* is the class of decision problems for which a proposed solution (certificate) can be **verified** in polynomial time by a deterministic algorithm.

### 4.3 The Class co-NP

**Definition 5 (co-NP).** *co-NP* is the complement class of *NP*: the NO-instances can be verified in polynomial time.

### 4.4 Complexity Hierarchy

The known containment relationships are:

$$P \subseteq NP \subseteq EXP$$

| Class   | Description                                                               |
|---------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| P       | Problems solvable in deterministic polynomial time.                       |
| NP      | Problems verifiable in polynomial time (YES-instances).                   |
| co – NP | Complement of NP; NO-instances verifiable in polynomial time.             |
| EXP     | Problems solvable in exponential time $\mathcal{O}(2^{\text{poly}(n)})$ . |

**The central open question in computer science:**

$$P \stackrel{?}{=} NP$$

## 5. NP-Completeness

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**Definition 6** (NP-Complete). *A problem  $L$  is **NP-Complete** if:*

1.  $L \in \text{NP}$  (solutions are verifiable in polynomial time), and
2.  $L$  is **NP-Hard**: every problem in  $\text{NP}$  reduces to  $L$  in polynomial time.

The canonical NP-Complete problem is **SAT** (Boolean Satisfiability): given a Boolean formula, determine whether there is a satisfying assignment.

## 6. Computability Theory

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### 6.1 Historical Context: Hilbert and Gödel

In 1896, Hilbert posed a famous list of problems, one of which asked whether every mathematical statement is decidable (computable). Many of these problems remain open today.

**Gödel** (1931) proved that not every mathematical problem is computable:

**Theorem 6.1** (Gödel's Incompleteness Theorem). *In any consistent, sufficiently powerful formal system, there exist true statements that can neither be proved nor disproved within the system.*

This result — primarily about logic — established fundamental limits of formal axiomatic systems.

### 6.2 What is Computable?

**Church** and **Turing** independently formalised computability in the 1930s. Turing's model — the *Turing Machine* — convinced Gödel and the broader community.

- **Church–Turing Thesis:** Any effectively computable function can be computed by a Turing Machine.

### 6.3 The Halting Problem

**Definition 7** (Halting Problem). *Given a program  $P$  and an input  $w$ , does  $P$  halt on  $w$ ?*

**Theorem 6.2** (Turing, 1936). *The Halting Problem is **undecidable**: no algorithm can decide it for all inputs.*

The proof uses a *diagonalisation* argument, and is deeply connected to Gödel’s incompleteness theorem via the Church–Turing thesis.